# Object Lesson: Monuments and Memory in Charlottesville

## 《物件之课：夏洛茨维尔的纪念碑与记忆》

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“There had been plenty of rumors all the evening through that a mob was gathering.” As the dark of night fell, hundreds, “many having masks over their faces,” marched through the streets of Charlottesville. Packed in close formation, the torch-lit masked throng marched up Second Street and then turned right on High, proceeding two more blocks to their destination: the north yard of the Albemarle County Courthouse. There they grew in numbers, eventually collecting “hundreds . . . at every corner in all directions,” all fueled by “a spirit of riot.” Although eerily familiar, this was not the summer of 2017, but exactly one century before.1 In the spring of 1917, Hampton Crosby and Richard Jones, both black, had been caught stealing a ham by white policeman Meredith Thomas. After a struggle, Thomas was shot and killed by his own gun. Just days later, Crosby and Jones found themselves detained in the old city jail, which still stands less than a block north of the courthouse.

“整个晚上都不断有传言说，一群暴民正在聚集。”夜幕降临时，数百人走上夏洛茨维尔的街道，其中“许多人脸上戴着面罩”。这支队伍紧密排列，戴着面具、举着火把，沿第二街前进，随后在 High Street 右转，又走了两个街区，抵达他们的目的地——阿尔伯马尔县法院北侧的空地。人群在那里不断增加，最终“各个街角、四面八方都聚集了数百人”，所有人都被“一种骚乱的情绪”所驱动。这个场景令人感到异常熟悉，但这里所说的并不是 2017 年的夏天，而是整整一个世纪以前。[1] 1917 年春天，两名黑人 Hampton Crosby 和 Richard Jones 在偷一只火腿时被白人警察 Meredith Thomas 抓住。双方发生扭打，Thomas 被自己的枪击中并死亡。仅仅几天之后，Crosby 和 Jones 就被关押在旧市监狱里；这座监狱至今仍在，位于县法院北侧不到一个街区的地方。

“Shouting and cat-calling” by the mob outside the jail persisted for hours. Authorities were alarmed when they learned that “a large delegation from the student body at the University was expected to join them in the grand march to seize the men and carry out a spectacular lynching at a tree selected near the place of the killing [of Thomas].” The sheriff needed reinforcements and called in an additional hundred men, half coming by train from Staunton. Just after midnight the fire department was called “but the hose was not used against the crowd. It was reported that the men declined to shift their volunteered service from fire-fighting to mob chasing, and would not use the apparatus.”2 The night was tense, but no one pulled the trigger. Into the early hours of the morning the crowd slowly dispersed, having “furnished no leader who could risk those glistening revolvers and shining bayonets seen dimly in the dusky night.”

监狱外暴民的“叫喊与起哄”持续了数小时。当局得知“预计会有一大批大学生加入他们，参加一场盛大的游行，抓走这两个人，并在 Thomas 遇害地点附近选定的一棵树上实施一场轰动的私刑”时，深感不安。县治安官需要增援，于是又调来一百人，其中一半乘火车从 Staunton 赶来。午夜刚过，消防队也被叫到现场，“但水龙带并没有用来驱散人群。据说消防员拒绝把自己志愿提供的救火服务改成驱赶暴民，也不愿动用消防设备。”[2] 当晚气氛十分紧张，但无人开枪。直到凌晨，人群才逐渐散去，因为他们“没有产生一个敢于冒着昏暗夜色中那些闪亮左轮手枪和刺刀的风险站出来带头的人”。

Soon after their trial in Richmond that June, Crosby and Jones were electrocuted.3 In both 1917 and 2017, white supremacy in Charlottesville was a public performance. White men asserted their presumed authority and public squares became stages of mass intimidation while streets became sites of domestic terrorism. Men carried torches and rope in 1917, shields and semiautomatic weapons in 2017; in both they donned masks, hoods, and capes. In 1917, they directed hours of catcalling to the jail cell windows; in 2017 they chanted “white lives matter” and “Jews will not replace us!” In the more recent events, these objects and figures live large in our imagination through photography and video clips. But in our screen-dependent, image-saturated age, visual memory seems to have dimmed our sensitivity to the power of place and the longer tradition of associating specific places with people or events. Marches, mobs, and other collective displays of intimidation inscribe racism into the very fabric of our cities.

同年六月，Crosby 和 Jones 在里士满受审后不久即被电椅处决。[3] 无论是 1917 年还是 2017 年，白人至上主义在夏洛茨维尔都是一种公开的展演。白人男性宣示他们自认为拥有的权威，公共广场成为大规模恐吓的舞台，街道则成为国内恐怖行为发生的场所。1917 年，人们携带火把和绳索；2017 年，他们携带盾牌和半自动武器；两个时期的人都戴着面具、兜帽和披风。1917 年，他们在监狱窗外连续数小时叫骂；2017 年，他们高喊“白人的命也是命”和“犹太人不会取代我们！”在较近的事件中，这些物件和人物通过照片与视频片段在我们的想象中占据了突出位置。然而，在这个依赖屏幕、被图像充斥的时代，视觉记忆似乎削弱了我们对“地点”之力量的敏感，也使我们不再那么注意将特定地点与特定人物或事件联系起来的更长历史传统。游行、暴民行动以及其他集体性的恐吓展示，把种族主义刻写进了城市本身的肌理。

Invisible to the nonresident, the legacy of ritualized racism in the mind of the resident is not easily erased from the palimpsest of place. And these public assertions of racial hierarchies—episodic yet highly visible—reinforce the silent but unyielding geographies of race. In many inland Southern cities like Charlottesville, "historically disenfranchised African American communities have been relegated to the margins and in many places to low-lying topographic areas in their respective cities while their white counterparts have commandeered higher elevations."4 Racism in Charlottesville is inscribed in the streets, buildings, squares, and in public monuments. In the course of just a decade straddling the Cosby-Jones lynching attempt, from the mid-1910s to the mid-1920s, Charlottesville's elites erected a series of four monuments along a high ridge-road that connected the University of Virginia to the heart of downtown. Commissioned and funded by stockbroker and philanthropist Paul Goodloe McIntyre, these four monuments collectively transformed the city: Meriwether Lewis and William Clark (1919); Thomas Jonathan "Stonewall" Jackson (1921); George Rogers Clark (1921); and Robert Edward Lee (1924) (Figure 1).5

对于外来者而言，这些痕迹或许并不可见；但对于当地居民来说，仪式化种族主义留下的遗产，并不容易从地点这一层层叠写的"羊皮纸"上被抹去。这些对种族等级秩序的公开宣示虽然是间歇性的，却高度可见，并由此强化了沉默却顽固存在的种族地理格局。在许多像夏洛茨维尔这样的南方内陆城市中，"历史上被剥夺政治权利的非裔美国人社区被排挤到城市边缘，在许多地方还被安置在地势较低的区域，而他们的白人邻居则占据了更高的地势。"[4] 夏洛茨维尔的种族主义被刻写在街道、建筑、广场以及公共纪念碑之中。从 1910 年代中期到 1920 年代中期，也就是横跨 Crosby-Jones 私刑未遂事件前后的短短十年间，夏洛茨维尔的精英沿着一条连接弗吉尼亚大学与市中心核心区的高地道路，建立了四座纪念碑。这四座纪念碑都由股票经纪人兼慈善家 Paul Goodloe McIntire 委托并出资，分别是 Meriwether Lewis 与 William Clark 纪念碑（1919）、Thomas Jonathan "Stonewall" Jackson 纪念碑（1921）、George Rogers Clark 纪念碑（1921）以及 Robert Edward Lee 纪念碑（1924）（图 1）。[5]

While the installations were nominally monuments to heroic men, they are more importantly charged objects with a particular history that shaped how they functioned socially and politically and what they meant to period viewers. When read through the lens of their specific historic and spatial contexts, these four statues read no longer as monuments to "the Lost Cause" or to Charlottesville's golden age. They are victory monuments, unflinching testaments to the collapse of Reconstruction and the re-establishment of white supremacy. And as public art they inscribed that victory into the fabric of the city.6

这些设施名义上是纪念英雄人物的纪念碑，但更重要的是，它们都是带有强烈政治意味的物件，各自具有具体的历史。这种历史塑造了它们在社会和政治中的运作方式，也决定了当时的观看者会如何理解它们。如果把这四座雕像放回其具体的历史与空间语境中，它们便不再只是纪念所谓"失落事业"（Lost Cause）或夏洛茨维尔"黄金时代"的纪念碑。它们是胜利纪念碑，是对重建时期崩溃以及白人至上主义重新确立毫不掩饰的见证。作为公共艺术，它们又把这种胜利直接刻写进城市的物质肌理。[6]

## The Stonewall Jackson Monument, 1921 (502 feet above sea level; 24 feet tall)

### "石墙"杰克逊纪念碑，1921 年（海拔 502 英尺；高 24 英尺）

On that late night in April of 1917, the torch-lit mob centered their attention on an alley between residences that gave direct access to the county jail from the county courthouse (Figure 2, numbers 5 and 6, and letter A). The mob filled High Street and the open spaces around the Thomas Jefferson–designed courthouse. As reported in the local paper, the Daily Progress, they also spilled down McKee Street, which divided Courthouse Square from McKee's Row, a block of rental tenements occupied largely by African Americans. Contemporary whites described the tenements as "ramshackle" and "an eyesore" (Figure 2, number 7; Figure 3).7 In the same years that the hooded mob gathered outside the jail to threaten Crosby and Jones with lynching, Charlottesville's white community was making plans to tear down McKee's Row and replace it with a school for white children.8 Just over four years later, Senator Pat Harrison of Mississippi offered a hagiographic celebration of Stonewall Jackson at the unveiling of the new equestrian statue erected in his honor, on the spot previously occupied by McKee's Row.

1917 年 4 月那个深夜，举着火把的暴民把注意力集中在住宅之间的一条小巷上，这条小巷可以从县法院直接通往县监狱（图 2 中的 5、6 和字母 A）。人群占满了 High Street，也占据了由托马斯·杰斐逊设计的法院周围的空地。据当地报纸《Daily Progress》报道，他们还涌向 McKee Street；这条街把法院广场与

McKee’s Row 分隔开来，后者是一片主要由非裔美国人居住的出租排屋。当时的白人把这些住房称作“破破烂烂”以及“有碍观瞻的东西”（图 2 编号 7；图 3）。[7] 就在戴兜帽的暴民聚集在监狱外、以私刑威胁 Crosby 和 Jones 的同一时期，夏洛茨维尔的白人社区也在计划拆除 McKee’s Row，并在原地建造一所白人学校。[8] 四年多以后，密西西比州参议员 Pat Harrison 在一座新的“石墙”杰克逊骑马雕像揭幕时发表了近乎圣徒传式的颂扬；这座雕像就建在此前 McKee’s Row 所占据的位置上。

The “eyesore” had been replaced not with a white school but with a white memorial (Figure 2, number 2; Figure 4). The equestrian statue features Jackson leaning forward atop a horse approaching a canter. The figures are supported by a bold pink granite pedestal dominated by spectacular allegorical figures of Faith and Valor. The two strong, strikingly Aryan youth carry a shield adorned with the stars and bars. Placed at what had formerly been street level, Faith and Valor replaced the “rowdy” residents of McKee’s Row. The unveiling was the capstone of three days of celebration that included a grand gala reunion of Confederate veterans and a five thousand-person march through the city. It concluded with white school children formed as a living representation of the Confederate banner in Midway Plaza, which crowned the north slope of the city’s largest African American neighborhood, Vinegar Hill (Figure 2, letter B).9

于是，原先所谓“有碍观瞻的东西”并没有被白人学校取代，而是被一座白人的纪念物取代了（图 2 编号 2；图 4）。这座骑马雕像中的 Jackson 身体前倾，骑在一匹正要进入慢跑状态的马背上。雕像由醒目的粉红色花岗岩基座承托，基座上最显眼的是象征“信仰”和“勇武”的寓意人物。两个健壮、具有鲜明“雅利安”形象的青年托着一面饰有南方邦联星条图案的盾牌。“信仰”与“勇武”被安置在原先大致相当于街面的高度，取代了此前 McKee’s Row 那些被称作“喧闹”的居民。这次揭幕是连续三天庆祝活动的高潮，其中包括一次南方邦联退伍军人的盛大重聚，以及五千人参加的全城游行。庆典最终以白人学生在 Midway Plaza 排列成一面“活的”南方邦联旗帜作为结束；这里正位于全市最大非裔美国人社区 Vinegar Hill 北坡的高处（图 2 字母 B）。[9]

In the 1910s and 1920s, Courthouse Square—the location of McKee’s Row and the courthouse with its attendant jail and the site of the lynch mob and eventually the Jackson monument—was the center of Charlottesville’s political, legal, and civil authority.10 It was here that the laws of the city, the state, and the nation shaped the lives of local citizens. It was here that in the half century following the passage of the Fourteenth Amendment black Charlottesvillians saw the legal and political recognition of their citizenship slowly recede. This square was also within two blocks of buildings housing Charlottesville’s Catholic and Jewish congregations. As early as 1900, the Virginia Conference of Colored Men met at the Odd Fellow’s Hall to discuss methods of resisting African American political disenfranchisement. Within ten years, black political and legal authority had been so diminished as to erase their very presence from the landscape of citizenship.

在 1910 年代和 1920 年代，法院广场——这里既是 McKee’s Row 和法院及附属监狱所在地，也是私刑暴民聚集之处，后来又成为 Jackson 纪念碑所在地——是夏洛茨维尔政治、法律与市民权威的中心。[10] 正是在这里，城市、州和国家的法律塑造着当地市民的生活。也正是在这里，在《第十四修正案》通过后的半个世纪里，夏洛茨维尔黑人居民看到，他们作为公民在法律和政治上获得的承认逐渐退却。这个广场距离夏洛茨维尔天主教会和犹太教会的建筑也都只有两个街区左右。早在 1900 年，Virginia Conference of Colored Men 就曾在 Odd Fellow’s Hall 集会，讨论如何抵抗对非裔美国人政治权利的剥夺。不到十年，黑人的政治与法律权威已经被削弱到这样一种程度：他们在“公民身份”的城市景观中几乎连存在本身都被抹除了。

In his dedication speech for the Jackson monument, Senator Harrison noted that in the Civil War a nation was torn apart by “fratricidal strife.” There was no recognition of black presence; Harrison assumed his audience to be white. As Kirk Savage has pointed out, this common postwar language draws from Sophocles’s narrative of two brothers fighting on opposite sides in the war against Thebes. In such classic accounts, the brothers are worthy of honor but the slaves who also died on the battlefield were given no space in the story. And this framework for post–Civil War “reconciliation” was convenient for those working to exclude African Americans from the nation’s new social contract.11 Such familial language is part and parcel of a reconstituted Southern identity that Dell Upton has described as “unambiguously white.”12 But what did “white” mean in the 1910s and 1920s? As recent scholarship on the Ku Klux Klan (KKK) reinforces, elite Protestants constructed “white” in this period in opposition to black, but white in their view did not include all nonblacks.

在 Jackson 纪念碑的落成致辞中，参议员 Harrison 说，南北战争使一个国家因“手足相残的冲突”而分裂。他的叙述完全没有承认黑人群体的存在；Harrison 默认自己的听众都是白人。正如 Kirk Savage 所指出的，这种战后常见的话语借用了索福克勒斯关于两兄弟在底比斯战争中分属敌对双方的叙事。在这类古典故事中，两兄弟都值得获得荣誉，而同样死在战场上的奴隶却在故事里没有位置。这种南北战争后的“和解”框架，对那些试图把非裔美国人排除在国家新的社会契约之外的人来说十分便利。[11] 这种家庭式的话语，也构成了重建后的南方身份的一部分；Dell Upton 将这种身份描述为“毫不含糊地属于白人”。[12] 但在 1910 年代和 1920 年代，“白人”究竟意味着什么？正如近来有关三 K 党（KKK）的研究再次表明的那样，这一时期的精英新教徒是在与黑人相对照的意义上建构“白人”身份的，但在他们看来，“白人”并不包括所有非黑人群体。

In this era of massive immigration, “white” also excluded immigrants, Jews, and Catholics, categories of individuals who were not considered part of the American historical and political project.13 Like the Jackson monument itself, Harrison’s speech was an act of both intimidation and erasure. So was the demolition of McKee’s Row, which had stood within two blocks of the city’s Catholic Church and Jewish Synagogue (Figure 2, numbers 8, 9). And so was the threat of lynching. And so was the creation of a living Confederate banner, composed of white boys and girls, immediately above the city’s largest and most densely populated African American neighborhood. Taken together, these urban rituals, public speeches, and the physical remaking of the city were the product of collective action by the city’s population of white Southern-born Protestants. Asserting political authority in Charlottesville felt increasingly important to this collective of the white majority during the late 1910s.

在大规模移民的时代，“白人”这一范畴同样把移民、犹太人和天主教徒排除在外；这些人都不被视为美国历史与政治事业的一部分。[13] 与 Jackson 纪念碑本身一样，Harrison 的演说既是一种恐吓，也是一种抹除。拆除距离天主教堂和犹太会堂不到两个街区的 McKee’s Row，同样如此（图 2 编号 8、9）。私刑威胁也是如此。让白人男孩和女孩组成一面“活的”南方邦联旗帜，并把它放在全市最大、人口最密集的非裔美国人社区正上方，同样如此。把这些现象放在一起看，城市仪式、公共演说以及对城市物质空间的重新塑造，都是夏洛茨维尔那些出生于南方的白人新教徒通过集体行动共同完成的。到 1910 年代末，对这个占人口多数的白人群体来说，在夏洛茨维尔公开宣示政治权威变得越来越重要。

The message was clear to African Americans in the city who organized a local chapter of the NAACP in the summer of 1918, one year after the attempted lynching of Crosby and Jones.14 The summer and early autumn of 1919 brought a series of national race riots that were quickly folded into the much broader paranoia and trauma then unfolding across the nation, including the social unrest associated with the Wall Street bombing and deep anxieties over both anarchists and communists that fueled the Palmer Raids, to name just a few. The race riots began in Charleston, South Carolina, in May, and erupted also in Washington, D.C.; Norfolk, Virginia; Knoxville, Tennessee; and Omaha, Nebraska, eventually taking place in thirty-eight cities across the country. The worst was seen in Chicago, where riots lasted for thirteen days in August. Racial tension must have been palpable in Charlottesville as riots erupted in both nearby Washington and Norfolk.

这种信息对城里的非裔美国人而言十分清楚。1918 年夏，也就是 Crosby 和 Jones 遭遇私刑未遂事件一年后，他们成立了 NAACP 的地方分会。[14] 1919 年夏季和初秋，美国各地接连爆发一系列种族骚乱，并很快与当时全国范围内更广泛的恐慌和创伤交织在一起，其中包括与华尔街爆炸案有关的社会动荡，以及对无政府主义者和共产主义者的深度恐惧——这种恐惧又助长了帕尔默突袭（Palmer Raids）。种族骚乱于 5 月首先在南卡罗来纳州查尔斯顿爆发，随后又出现在华盛顿特区、弗吉尼亚州诺福克、田纳西州诺克斯维尔和内布拉斯加州奥马哈，最终波及全国 38 座城市。其中最严重的是芝加哥，骚乱在 8 月持续了 13 天。当骚乱先后在邻近的华盛顿和诺福克爆发时，夏洛茨维尔的种族紧张氛围必然也十分明显。

And then, in August of 1920, Congress passed the Nineteenth Amendment, giving women the right to vote. Soon thereafter, the chairman of Virginia’s Democratic Party sent out an appeal notifying all white women in Virginia that “the negro women are making desperate efforts to register.” This was in his mind a serious problem since “the negro women are more intelligent than the negro men, therefore much more successful in meeting the requirements of the registration law.” His appeal was to “look to Democratic white women of the state, whether they favor equal suffrage or not, to maintain the prestige, the integrity, the traditions, and the honor of Virginia.”15 The threat of black agency

overshadowed even the arrival of women's suffrage. And finally, in February of 1921, the Daily Progress published a portion of a speech by an African American activist from the St. Louis Urban League.

随后，1920 年 8 月，国会通过《第十九修正案》，赋予女性选举权。不久之后，弗吉尼亚州民主党主席发出呼吁，告知全州所有白人女性："黑人女性正在拼命登记成为选民。"在他看来，这构成了一个严重问题，因为"黑人女性比黑人男性更聪明，因此更能成功满足选民登记法的要求。"他呼吁"不论是否支持平等选举权，弗吉尼亚州的民主党白人女性都应维护本州的声望、完整、传统与荣誉。"[15] 在这种思维中，黑人行动能力所带来的"威胁"，甚至压过了女性选举权到来的意义。最后，1921 年 2 月，《Daily Progress》刊登了圣路易斯 Urban League 一位非裔美国活动家的部分演讲。

The article announced: The New Negro of Charlottesville wants: 1. Teachers' salaries based on service not on color 2. A four year high school 3. Representation on City Council 4. 'Jim Crow' street cars abolished 5. Representation on School Board 6. Better street facilities in Negro districts We are tax payers and law abiding citizens. We know our strength and will accept nothing short of justice!16 With the relative freedom of an outsider, George W. Buckner gave voice to Charlottesville's structural racism: income inequities, education injustice, black political disenfranchisement, and unequal neighborhood investment. Charlottesville's white majority responded by describing the propositions as "impossible."17 By 1921, racial tensions in Charlottesville boiled over. That summer, the KKK organized a public address inside the courthouse just feet from where the Jackson monument would be unveiled in October (Figure 2, number 6). The public address was supported by bulletins posted around town that warned that "law and order must prevail."

文章写道："夏洛茨维尔的'新黑人'要求：1. 教师工资应按照服务而不是肤色决定；2. 建立四年制高中；3. 在市议会中获得代表席位；4. 废除'吉姆·克劳'有轨电车；5. 在教育委员会中获得代表席位；6. 改善黑人居住区的街道设施。我们是纳税人，也是守法的公民。我们知道自己的力量，除了正义，我们绝不接受任何更少的东西！"[16] 作为一个相对自由的外来者，George W. Buckner 直接说出了夏洛茨维尔结构性种族主义的内容：收入不平等、教育不公、黑人政治权利被剥夺，以及社区投资不平等。夏洛茨维尔的白人多数群体则把这些主张称为"不可能"。[17] 到 1921 年，夏洛茨维尔的种族紧张局势已经达到沸点。那年夏天，三 K 党就在法院内部举办公开演说，距离同年 10 月即将揭幕的 Jackson 纪念碑只有几英尺（图 2 编号 6）。城里还张贴了宣传单为这场演讲造势，上面警告说，"法律与秩序必须占据上风"。

They announced: "All undesirables must leave town. The eye of the unknown has been and is constantly observing. . . . We See All, We Hear All, We Know All." The bulletin ended with an invitation. Any "100 percent" white native born American man who "held to the tenets of the Christian religion, Free Schools, Free Speech, Free Press, Law Enforcement, Liberty, and White Supremacy" (italics added) was welcome to join.18 The KKK spoke openly in the space of the courthouse about the enforcement of white supremacy as essential to the preservation of the ideals of the Confederacy. Charlottesville's non-white audience certainly got the message. When the echoes of their voices faded and the bulletins all melted in the rain, the monumental statue of Stonewall Jackson and its Aryan youth—erected just months after the KKK spoke inside the courthouse—would serve to remind black and white Charlottesvillians of the unspoken requirements for full citizenship: a highly circumscribed conception of "whiteness."19

宣传单宣布："所有不受欢迎的人都必须离开本城。未知之眼一直在注视，而且仍在不断注视……我们看见一切，我们听见一切，我们知道一切。"传单最后还发出招募邀请：任何"百分之百"的本土出生白人美国男性，只要"信奉基督教、自由学校、言论自由、新闻自由、执法、自由以及白人至上主义"（原文斜体），就可以加入。[18] 三 K 党在法院这一空间中公开宣称，实施白人至上主义是维护南方邦联理想不可缺少的一部分。夏洛茨维尔的非白人听众当然清楚地接收到了这一信息。当这些声音的回响消散、传单也在雨中化开之后，"石墙"杰克逊的巨大雕像及其"雅利安"青年——就在三 K 党于法院演说数月后建立——将继续提醒黑人与白人夏洛茨维尔居民：要获得完整公民资格，还存在着一条没有明说的条件，即一个受到严格限定的"白人性"概念。[19]

## The George Rogers Clark Statue, 1921 (505 feet above sea level; 24 feet tall)

**George Rogers Clark 雕像，1921 年（海拔 505 英尺；高 24 英尺）**

Just two weeks after the unveiling of the Stonewall Jackson monument in Courthouse Square, Charlottesvillians gathered once again to reveal an even larger monument: an equestrian statue of Virginian son and Revolutionary War figure George Rogers Clark (Figure 5). In the composition, Clark faces a group of three Native Americans. A kneeling woman, wrapped in a blanket, holds up a cradleboard as if to plead for an unseen child. The central figure is a chief standing erect, also wrapped in a blanket, with long braided hair that spills across his shoulders. A second male figure, with two feathers in his hair, crouches at his feet. His blanket is open to the rear, exposing a knife that portends the possibility of resistance. With his right hand Clark gestures an invitation to join three members of his expedition grouped behind him. These men are clearly part of his regiment, but the ambiguous facial features suggest that at least one might be Native American, now acculturated and submitting to white cultural norms.

法院广场上的“石墙”杰克逊纪念碑揭幕后仅两周，夏洛茨维尔居民再次聚集起来，为另一座更大的纪念碑揭幕：一座纪念弗吉尼亚之子、美国独立战争人物 George Rogers Clark 的骑马雕像（图 5）。在这组雕塑中，Clark 面向三名美洲原住民。一名裹着毯子的跪姿女性举着婴儿背板，仿佛在为一个画面之外的孩子恳求。中央是一名直立的酋长，同样裹着毯子，长长的辫发垂过肩头。第二名男性头插两根羽毛，蹲伏在酋长脚边；他身后的毯子敞开，露出一把刀，暗示着抵抗的可能性。Clark 伸出右手，仿佛邀请他们加入他身后的三名远征队成员。这些人显然属于他的队伍，但他们模糊的面部特征暗示，其中至少有一人可能也是原住民，只是已经被文化同化，并服从于白人的文化规范。

The figural group sits atop a granite pedestal, much plainer than that supporting Jackson, which simply names Clark “Conqueror of the Northwest.” The gesture of invitation made by Clark’s extended hand is undermined by the powder keg behind him and the heroic pronouncement of Clark as conqueror. The invitation had no real options: join or perish. University of Virginia (UVA) president Edwin Alderman heralded the unveiling with a speech that extolled “the son of this soil, a hero, a pioneer, and a conqueror.”20 The monument stands in a small triangle of grass adjacent to West Main Street and separating the eateries of the Corner from the University hospital (Figure 6, numbers 2 and 10). This location seems curious in the contemporary city, but it made sense in the early 1920s. This site, among the easternmost parcels owned by the University of Virginia, tied this monument to the three statues downtown via the critical artery of Main Street.

整组人物立在一个花岗岩基座上；与 Jackson 纪念碑的基座相比，这个基座朴素得多，只把 Clark 称作“西北地区的征服者”。Clark 伸手做出的邀请姿态，被他身后的火药桶以及把他英雄化为“征服者”的铭文削弱了。这个所谓的邀请实际上没有真正的选择：要么加入，要么灭亡。弗吉尼亚大学（UVA）校长 Edwin Alderman 在揭幕演说中称赞他是“这片土地的儿子、英雄、拓荒者和征服者”。[20] 纪念碑位于 West Main Street 旁一小块三角形草地上，处在 The Corner 一带的餐馆与弗吉尼亚大学医院之间（图 6 编号 2、10）。在今天看来，这个位置似乎有些奇怪，但在 1920 年代初却很合理。这里属于弗吉尼亚大学最东侧的一批土地之一，通过 Main Street 这一关键交通轴线，把这座纪念碑与市中心的三座雕像连接起来。

As mentioned by one commentator, the statue “will make an imposing scene at the entrance to the University.”21 And many of those arrivals would be African Americans. Throughout the twentieth century and right up to the present, the high ground of Main Street, which connects the University to the city, is flanked by low-lying historically African American neighborhoods like the 10th and Page neighborhood, occupied by those who worked (and still work) as janitorial staff in residences in the city and in the halls and classrooms of the University (Figure 1). At their lowest point, these neighborhoods are more than thirty-three feet below Main Street and the Clark monument. With its three groups—Clark on a horse, acculturated Native Americans, and the defiant resistance of the chief—the monument is an essay on the hierarchies of race, scientific studies of genetic superiority, and the period discourse on civility and savagery.

正如一位当时的评论者所说，这座雕像“会在大学入口处形成一个极具气势的景观”。[21] 而经过这里进入大学的人中，有许多会是非裔美国人。从 20 世纪一直到今天，连接大学与城市的 Main Street 位于较高地势，而它两侧则是一些历史悠久、地势较低的非裔美国人社区，例如 10th and Page 社区。这里的居民过去（今天仍有一些）在城内住宅以及大学的走廊和教室里从事清洁工作（图 1）。在最低处，这些社区比 Main Street 和 Clark 纪念碑低超过 33 英尺。纪念碑由三组人物构成——骑马的 Clark、已经被同化的原住民，以及表现出反抗姿态的酋长——它本身就像一篇有关种族等级、遗传优越性的科学研究，以及当时“文明/野蛮”话语的视觉论文。

As understood by one commentator, “The conqueror of the Northwest is evidently explaining the futility of a resistance.”22 When pitted against the clear superiority of white Americans, the racial inferiority of Native Americans was expected to be self-evident; their best hope was to abandon their savagery and take the long road of submission to white civility. This interpretation of the monument is made clearer when read in its urban context. While the Clark statue revealed to all those who passed by the futility of resisting white authority, the building complex immediately beyond—the hospital of the University of Virginia—housed the classrooms of Dr. Paul Barringer, professor of physiology, who spent his life researching white racial superiority through the study of eugenics.23 Barringer was president of the faculty when UVA built its very first hospital in 1901. Approaching the University from the city, the new hospital was the first University building one would see after passing the Clark monument.

正如一位评论者所理解的那样：“这位西北地区的征服者显然是在解释抵抗的徒劳。”[22] 在所谓白人美国人明显优越的前提下，美洲原住民的“种族劣等”被认为是不言自明的；他们最好的希望，就是放弃所谓“野蛮”，踏上漫长的道路，向白人“文明”屈服。把这座纪念碑放回城市空间的语境中，这层含义就更加清楚。Clark 雕像向所有经过的人展示抵抗白人权威的徒劳，而雕像后方不远处的建筑群——弗吉尼亚大学医院——则设有生理学教授 Paul Barringer 博士的课堂。Barringer 一生都借助优生学研究所谓白人种族优越性。[23] 1901 年弗吉尼亚大学修建第一所医院时，他正担任教师委员会主席。从城市方向接近大学时，人们经过 Clark 纪念碑后首先看到的大学建筑，就是这座新医院。

Barringer professed the intrinsic racial inferiority of African Americans. In his 1900 publication The American Negro: His Past and Future, Barringer states his case: The American negro is the resultant of a combination of forces, each one of which can be isolated and analyzed. I will show from the study of his racial history (phylogeny) that his late tendency to return to barbarism is as natural as the return of the sow that is washed to her wallowing in the mire. I will show that the ages of degradation under which he was formed and the fifty centuries of historically recorded savagery with which he came to us cannot be permanently influenced by one or two centuries of enforced correction.24 The African American community did not receive Barringer’s arguments quietly.

Barringer 宣扬非裔美国人在本质上的种族劣等。他在 1900 年出版的《The American Negro: His Past and Future》中这样陈述自己的观点：“美国黑人是多种力量共同作用的结果，而这些力量中的每一种都可以被分离并加以分析。我将通过研究他的种族历史（系统发育史）表明，他晚近重新趋向野蛮，就像一头被洗干净的母猪重新回到泥沼中打滚一样自然。我将表明，塑造他的长期退化过程，以及他来到我们这里时所携带的、历史有记录的五十个世纪的野蛮状态，不可能被一两个世纪强制性的矫正所永久改变。”[24] 非裔美国人社区并没有默默接受 Barringer 的这些论点。

An editor of the Colored American, an African American periodical published in Washington, D.C., offered a response to a Barringer lecture: In composing the correspondence I am now sitting in full view of “Monticello” where rests the remains of the immortal Thomas Jefferson, and I am sure if it were possible for Jefferson to arise from his grave and find that the grand old University of Virginia, of which he is the founder, has such a man as the chairman of the faculty, who would make such base utterances as the Doctor is quoted to have made against an inoffensive people, his next request would be “Let me go back immediately to Mother Earth.”25 Not all educated Americans adhered to views such as Barringer’s and certainly the community of educated African Americans leveled objections. Nonetheless, in Charlottesville, the tide of popular adherence to such views was turning with the tide of scientific racism.

华盛顿特区出版的非裔美国人期刊《Colored American》的一位编辑回应了 Barringer 的一次演讲：“我写这封信时，正坐在可以清楚望见‘蒙蒂塞洛’的地方，那里安放着不朽的托马斯·杰斐逊的遗骸。我确信，如果杰斐逊能够从坟墓中起来，并发现由他创办的那所伟大的弗吉尼亚大学，竟然有这样一个人担任教师委员会主席，而且这位博士还被引述为对一个与世无争的群体说出如此卑劣的话，那么他的下一个请求一定会是：‘请让我立刻回到大地母亲那里去。’”[25] 并非所有受过教育的美国人都接受 Barringer 这样的看法，受过教育的非裔美国人群体当然也明确提出了反对意见。尽管如此，在夏洛茨维尔，随着科学种族主义日益流行，公众对这类观点的接受也正在形成潮流。

Seen through this lens, “the futility of resistance” takes on a whole new meaning. Barringer and many others at the University adhered to a biologically determinist view of humanity that enlisted science to assert a hierarchy of the races. Eugenicists argued that selective sterilization could and should improve the human race. This included the selective sterilization of some whites and the widespread sterilization of “inferior” races, including blacks but also Jews and other

nonwhites. In this way, the death of resistant Native Americans (or African Americans for that matter) followed a recommended and natural course of genetic winnowing and racial improvement. Barringer's teachings were closely aligned with the convictions of the Virginia Grand Dragon of the KKK when he spoke at a 1922 meeting of the Charlottesville chapter: "The destinies of America shall remain with the white race; they shall never be entrusted to the black, the brown, or the yellow, or to the unclean hands of hybrids or mongrels."26

从这个角度看，“抵抗的徒劳”便获得了全新的含义。Barringer 以及大学中的许多人都持一种生物决定论的人类观，借“科学”来主张种族之间存在等级差异。优生学家认为，选择性绝育能够而且应该用来“改善”人类种族。其中不仅包括对部分白人的选择性绝育，也包括对所谓“劣等”种族的大规模绝育，范围既包括黑人，也包括犹太人和其他非白人群体。在这种逻辑下，拒绝服从的美洲原住民（乃至非裔美国人）的死亡，被看成符合一种值得提倡且“自然”的基因淘汰和种族改良过程。Barringer 的教导与弗吉尼亚州三 K 党最高负责人（Grand Dragon）的信念高度一致。后者在 1922 年夏洛茨维尔分会的一次集会上宣称：“美国的命运必须继续掌握在白人种族手中；绝不能把它交给黑人、棕色人种或黄色人种，也绝不能交给混血者或杂种那不洁的双手。”[26]

The newspaper article describing this speech concluded by noting that the Charlottesville chapter was not among the largest in the state but that it boasted "many of our able and influential citizens." And strong support for the KKK's views appears also to have permeated the student body. That same year, the student yearbook published white-hooded equestrian riders as the cover page to the Clubs and Organizations section of the University yearbook, Corks and Curls (Figure 7). And just two years later, these genetic assessments became legislation with the passage of both the Racial Integrity Act and the Virginia Sterilization Act. Virginia's Racial Integrity Act built this definition into the legal code of the state, most clearly through its famous "one drop rule": a Virginian had to be 100 percent white to be identified as a white American. The Virginia Sterilization Act was challenged but upheld by the Supreme Court and became a model law for other states.

报道这次演讲的报纸文章在结尾处指出，夏洛茨维尔分会虽然不是全州规模最大的分会之一，却拥有“许多有能力、有影响力的本地市民”。三 K 党观点似乎也在学生群体中获得了相当强的支持。同一年，弗吉尼亚大学年鉴《Corks and Curls》在“社团与组织”部分的扉页上刊登了头戴白色兜帽、骑马而行的人物（图 7）。仅仅两年后，这些关于“遗传”的判断就通过《种族完整法》（Racial Integrity Act）和《弗吉尼亚绝育法》（Virginia Sterilization Act）的通过而进入法律。弗吉尼亚州《种族完整法》把这种定义写进州法律，其中最清楚的表现就是著名的“一滴血规则”：一个弗吉尼亚人必须是“百分之百白人”，才能被认定为白人美国人。《弗吉尼亚绝育法》曾受到司法挑战，但最终获得最高法院支持，并成为其他州仿效的示范法律。

(The Virginia General Assembly apologized for the act's blatant racism in 2001.) Soon after the passage of the Racial Integrity Act, Dr. Ivey Lewis, the Miller Professor of Biology at UVA, delivered a public lecture on the importance of the new law, arguing, "The mixing of whites with blacks was the chief cause of the fall of civilizations of Rome, Greece, Egypt, and India." Cross-racial breeding, he continued, produced in whites a "laxness of morals and a crumbling of culture."27 Then just months later, the University's Anglo-Saxon Club announced a lecture in Madison Hall by Earnest Sevier Cox, the legislator who worked most fervently to see the Virginia General Assembly pass the Racial Integrity Act. This was the party line: white elite men (by which they meant Protestant white men born in the South) who had enjoyed the great benefits of a UVA education had a moral, even patriotic, responsibility to defend the purity of their race. All those passing by the entrance to the University, newly ornamented with the monument to the Conqueror of the Northwest, would be reminded of the inevitable authority of whites. Contemporary medical science conveniently reinforced the politics of Courthouse Square.28

（弗吉尼亚州议会在 2001 年为这项法律赤裸裸的种族主义性质道歉。）《种族完整法》通过不久，弗吉尼亚大学 Miller 生物学教授 Ivey Lewis 博士就公开演讲，强调这项新法的重要性，并声称：“白人与黑人混合，是罗马、希腊、埃及和印度文明衰亡的主要原因。”他继续说，跨种族繁殖会在白人中造成“道德松弛和文化崩溃”。[27] 几个月后，大学的 Anglo-Saxon Club 又宣布在 Madison Hall 举办 Earnest Sevier Cox 的演讲；Cox 正是为推动弗吉尼亚州议会通过《种族完整法》而最积极努力的立法者。这就是当时的基本立场：白人精英男性——他们所谓的白人，实际上指的是出生在南方的白人新教男性——既然享受了弗吉尼亚大学教育带来的巨大益处，就负有一种道德的、甚至爱国的责任去捍卫本种族的“纯洁”。所有经过大学

入口、看到新设立的“西北地区征服者”纪念碑的人，都会再次被提醒白人权威被塑造成不可避免的事实。当时的医学科学恰好又为法院广场上的政治秩序提供了支持。[28]

## The Lewis and Clark (and Sacagawea) Monument, 1919 (486 feet above sea level; 18 feet tall)

### Lewis 与 Clark（以及 Sacagawea）纪念碑，1919 年（海拔 486 英尺；高 18 英尺）

The earliest of this series of monuments to be installed in Charlottesville’s cityscape commemorated Meriwether Lewis and William Clark, younger brother of George Rogers Clark (Figure 8). The third figure in the grouping, Sacagawea, crouching below and behind the two white men, was (and is) commonly left out of the statue’s naming. Commemorating the expedition commissioned by Thomas Jefferson, numerous contemporaries understood this work to be in conversation with that of Clark’s brother since they marked each end of the street connecting the University and the city. But if George Rogers Clark bore the imperial charge to conquer the Northwest, his younger brother carried the charge of discovery and documentation. The pedestal of the monument bore the burden of interpretation. It tells viewers that these two men were “farseeing pathfinders” (when in fact that was Sacagawea’s role) who “revealed an unknown empire.” The expedition was made famous in part for all the artifacts returned to Virginia and exhibited in the entry hall of Monticello.

这一组纪念碑中最早进入夏洛茨维尔城市景观的作品，是为了纪念 Meriwether Lewis 和 William Clark——后者是 George Rogers Clark 的弟弟（图 8）。雕塑中的第三个人物 Sacagawea 蹲在两个白人男性的下方和后方，但无论过去还是现在，她通常都不会出现在这座雕像的名称里。这座雕塑纪念的是托马斯·杰斐逊委派的远征。许多当时的人认为，它与 Clark 的哥哥那座雕像相互呼应，因为两座作品分别位于连接大学与城市的道路两端。但如果说 George Rogers Clark 承担的是征服西北地区的帝国使命，那么他的弟弟承担的则是发现与记录的使命。纪念碑基座承担了主要的解释功能：它告诉观看者，这两个人是“目光远大的开路先锋”（尽管实际上承担向导角色的是 Sacagawea），并且“揭示了一个未知的帝国”。这次远征之所以广为人知，部分原因就在于大量被带回弗吉尼亚的物件，后来曾在蒙蒂塞洛入口大厅展出。

This monument to the Enlightenment project of discovery stood in the midst of Midway Plaza, the park at the intersection of Main and Ridge Streets. It carried the name of the school that stood on the hill just above it: the Midway School (Figure 2, number 11). It was this same park that would two years later host the abovementioned living Confederate banner. In February of 1890, the city’s school board, “being of opinion that a high school for this community is a necessity for the completion of a thorough system of public education,” embarked on the project of adding to the existing Midway School the necessary accommodations for a high school department.29 The Midway School was, of course, all white. Just downhill from Midway Plaza stood Charlottesville’s African American school: the Jefferson Graded School (Figure 2, number 12). Although founded in the years just after the Civil War, the building that stood on the site was completed in 1894.

这座纪念启蒙时代“发现”事业的纪念碑，坐落在 Main Street 与 Ridge Street 交叉口的 Midway Plaza 中央。这个广场的名字来自坡地上方的一所学校——Midway School（图 2 编号 11）。两年之后，前文提到的那面由学生组成的“活的”南方邦联旗帜，也是在同一个公园中出现。1890 年 2 月，市教育委员会认为“要完成一套完善的公共教育体系，本社区有必要建立一所高中”，于是开始对原有的 Midway School 进行扩建，为高中部增添必要设施。[29] 当然，Midway School 是一所完全属于白人的学校。在 Midway Plaza 下坡处，则是夏洛茨维尔的非裔美国人学校 Jefferson Graded School（图 2 编号 12）。这所学校虽然在南北战争结束后的几年里就已创办，但当时矗立在该地的校舍是在 1894 年建成的。

It did not include a high school. The only option for high school education for Charlottesville’s black community was to board their children at schools in Richmond or Lynchburg, a prohibitive expense for most. This injustice and inequity was noted even among the white readership of the Richmond newspapers when in 1895 the Charlottesville correspondent to the Richmond Planet urged local leaders to “unite and ask for” a high school for black students.30 And the absence was not for lack of demand; black teachers reported classrooms of fifty children each.31 Overfull classrooms meant that there was clear need for more teachers and more space and that there was an obvious pipeline that would support a high school. Charlottesville’s black community leaders deeply objected to the notion—informed by the emerging field of eugenics—that African American children had only manual and no intellectual capacity. In 1914, for example, the city’s

black pastors all simultaneously protested from their pulpits “against colored boys being educated to work with their hands.”32

然而，这所学校并没有高中部。对于夏洛茨维尔的黑人社区来说，接受高中教育的唯一办法，是把孩子送到里士满或林奇堡寄宿上学；对大多数家庭而言，这笔费用高得难以承担。甚至在里士满报纸的白人读者中，也有人注意到这种不公与不平等。1895 年，《Richmond Planet》驻夏洛茨维尔通讯员就敦促当地领袖“联合起来，要求”为黑人学生建立一所高中。[30] 这种缺失并不是因为没有需求；黑人教师报告说，每间教室里有多达 50 名儿童。[31] 教室过度拥挤说明，更多教师和更多空间显然是必要的，也说明已经存在足够稳定的学生来源支撑一所高中。夏洛茨维尔黑人社区领袖强烈反对一种受到新兴优生学影响的观念，即认为非裔美国儿童只适合体力劳动、没有智力能力。例如 1914 年，全市黑人牧师就同时在各自讲坛上抗议“把有色人种男孩教育成只用双手劳动的人”。[32]

This objection was not against manual labor per se but the supposition that all boys should be tracked toward manual labor and denied the rigorous intellectual training of a classical liberal arts education. Such tracking, of course, structurally disadvantaged a whole generation of African Americans when they applied to colleges and universities. In response, the white school superintendent closed the Jefferson school’s woodshop. The collective action for education justice by Charlottesville’s African American leadership unsettled the city’s Protestant white elite. Just over a year later a group of white Charlottesville residents dressed their children for Halloween as “a gay battalion of the Ku Klux Klan,” which thundered down “from the heights of Midway.” During this overt display of white intimidation, “many a dusky denizen of ‘the bottom’ was seen to shrink instinctively back into the shadows of Preston Avenue, as they swept along” (Figure 2, letter C).33

这种反对并不是反对体力劳动本身，而是反对这样一种预设：所有黑人男孩都应被分流到体力劳动轨道，从而被剥夺严格的古典人文学科教育。这样的分流当然会在结构上使整整一代非裔美国人在申请学院和大学时处于不利位置。作为回应，白人学校主管干脆关闭了 Jefferson School 的木工工场。夏洛茨维尔非裔美国领袖为教育正义所采取的集体行动，使城里的白人新教精英感到不安。一年多以后，一群夏洛茨维尔白人居民在万圣节把自己的孩子装扮成“一支快乐的三 K 党营队”，让他们“从 Midway 的高地”轰然冲下。在这场公然的白人恐吓展示中，“当他们席卷而过时，许多住在‘低地’的深肤色居民被看到本能地退回 Preston Avenue 的阴影里”（图 2 字母 C）。[33]

Running from Midway Plaza to the heart of Vinegar Hill, the children descended almost fifty-six feet, a steep descent. That this public performance by white children began at the white school and ran through the neighborhood of Vinegar Hill cannot have been coincidence. As African Americans began a campaign for education justice, the city’s whites enlisted their own children to perform ritualized racism through Charlottesville’s racialized urban topography. Halloween was an opportunity to remind the African American residents of Vinegar Hill not to challenge the established racialized hierarchy of education. Just two years later, the white community installed the new monument to the explorers, a public monument that carried the implicit message that inquiry and discovery was a white mandate and that the work of racial others was, like Sacagawea’s tracking, limited to the natural and the manual. But such efforts at intimidation did not have the desired effect.

从 Midway Plaza 跑向 Vinegar Hill 核心地带时，这些孩子下降了将近 56 英尺，坡度相当陡峭。这场由白人儿童进行的公开表演，从白人学校出发，再穿过 Vinegar Hill 社区，很难说只是巧合。就在非裔美国人开始争取教育正义时，城市中的白人却动员自己的孩子，沿着夏洛茨维尔已经被种族化的城市地形，去表演一种仪式化的种族主义。万圣节成为一个机会，用来提醒 Vinegar Hill 的非裔美国居民不要挑战既定的、种族化的教育等级。仅仅两年后，白人社区又树立了那座探险者纪念碑。这座公共纪念碑隐含着一种信息：探究与发现是白人的使命，而其他种族群体的工作——就像 Sacagawea 所承担的引路工作一样——只能局限在“自然”与“手工劳动”的范围。不过，这些恐吓并没有产生他们预想的效果。

After the World War I armistice, Reverend Clarence Long, the pastor of the African American First Baptist Church on West Main Street, took up the vigorous campaign for a black high school. His church was just a few blocks from the Jefferson School. As described by one of the first teachers at the Jefferson High School (finally opened in 1926), Long “stirred up the white people so much that they thought it better to concede to the African American community’s demand for a high school than to allow him to stir up the African American community any further.”34 The resistance of the

white community was so great, she reported, that Long eventually left Charlottesville. Speaking to the situation in 1921, the St. Louis Urban League called out the need for a four-year high school for black students. African American collective action eventually resulted in a successful petition to the school board for the construction of a high school on the site of the Jefferson Graded School.

第一次世界大战停战后，West Main Street 上非裔美国 First Baptist Church 的牧师 Clarence Long 积极展开了争取黑人高中的运动。他的教堂距离 Jefferson School 只有几个街区。后来终于在 1926 年开办的 Jefferson High School 的一位早期教师回忆说，Long “把白人搅动得如此厉害，以至于他们认为，与其让他继续鼓动非裔美国人社区，不如同意非裔美国人建立一所高中的要求”。[34] 她说，白人社区的阻力极大，以至于 Long 最终离开了夏洛茨维尔。谈到 1921 年的状况时，圣路易斯 Urban League 也明确指出，黑人学生需要一所四年制高中。非裔美国人的集体行动最终促成了一份成功递交给教育委员会的请愿，要求在 Jefferson Graded School 所在地建设一所高中。

But when it was opened in 1926, it offered only a two-year course of study and not a full four-year course as was the case at the Midway School. The superintendent had concluded that “it will be a long, long time before there will be pupils enough to justify a four year course for a colored high school in this city.”35 He was incorrect. The program expanded to include all four years by the 1929–30 school year.

但这所学校在 1926 年开办时，只提供两年的课程，而不像 Midway School 那样提供完整的四年高中课程。教育主管认为，“要等很久、很久，才会有足够多的学生，使这座城市为有色人种高中开设四年课程变得合理。”[35] 事实证明他的判断是错误的。到 1929—1930 学年，这个项目就已经扩展为完整的四年制。

## The Robert E. Lee Monument, 1924 (486 feet above sea level; 26 feet tall)

### Robert E. Lee 纪念碑，1924 年（海拔 486 英尺；高 26 英尺）

The monument to Robert E. Lee was the last of the four to be installed (Figure 2, number 4; Figure 9). As with the Jackson monument, the week of its unveiling was filled with festivals and galas organized especially to celebrate the last surviving Confederate veterans. One of the events was the ritual opening of the Grand Camp of the Confederate Veterans of Virginia, which took place in the downtown Jefferson Theater, the center of white Charlottesville’s social life (Figure 2, number 13). The ladies of the Confederacy were welcomed in the theater that evening. The most public spectacle, aside from the unveiling, was the grand parade of the Ku Klux Klan. “Thousands lined the sidewalks of Main Street from the C&O Station to the foot of Vinegar Hill,” the newspaper reported (Figure 2, letter D). The nighttime “march of the white robed figures was impressive and directed attention to the presence of the organization in the community.”36

Robert E. Lee 纪念碑是这四座纪念碑中最后一座落成的（图 2 编号 4；图 9）。和 Jackson 纪念碑一样，揭幕的那一周充满各种节庆和晚会，特别用来庆祝仍然在世的最后一批南方邦联退伍军人。其中一项活动，是 Virginia Confederate Veterans Grand Camp 的仪式性开幕，地点在市中心的 Jefferson Theater——白人夏洛茨维尔社会生活的中心（图 2 编号 13）。当晚，南方邦联的女性组织成员也在剧院受到欢迎。除了揭幕仪式本身，最公开的壮观场面是三 K 党的大型游行。报纸写道：“从 C&O Station 到 Vinegar Hill 山脚，Main Street 两侧的人行道上挤满了成千上万的人”（图 2 字母 D）。夜间“白袍队伍的行进令人印象深刻，也让人们注意到这个组织在本地社区中的存在”。[36]

The conclusion of the parade at Vinegar Hill was surely no accident and certainly focused attention in Charlottesville’s African American community. The week culminated in a grand Confederate Ball to be held in UVA’s Memorial Gymnasium (Figure 10). Admission was limited to members of Confederate organizations, especially the Daughters and Sons of Confederate Veterans. The announcement of the ball also noted that the Sons of Confederate Veterans were now accepting applications from grandsons.37 The KKK appears to have had a special relationship with Memorial Gym; just a decade earlier, the Klan offered a generous gift of $10,000 to UVA for the construction of that same facility. All of this for the celebration of Robert E. Lee. If George Washington was the father of our country, then Robert E. Lee was the patriarch of the Confederacy. So said Edwin Alderman, UVA’s president, on the occasion of the unveiling of the Lee monument: “The South’s great Chieftain had done even more than his great prototype, Washington,” Alderman continued, stating that Lee “was the embodiment of the best that there is in all the sincere and romantic history of the whole state. Its triumphs, its defeats, its joys, its sufferings, its rebirth, its pride, and its patience center in him.”38 By the opening decades of the twentieth century, the liturgies of the cult of Lee were already deeply entrenched in the self-

fashioning of white Southerners. Just months after the unveiling of the Lee statue, the pastor of the First Presbyterian Church, which then faced onto the park that was then called Lee Square, “described social life in the South before and during the war . . . with all that made it ideal and charming” (Figure 2, number 14).39 When Richmond unveiled its own Lee statue, one African American resident in that city noted its message: “The Southern white folks is on top.”40 If the society and culture of the (presumably white) Old South were reimagined as charming, then black culture was recast as its antithesis. The Jefferson Theater, just two blocks away from the Lee monument, rescreened Birth of a Nation (first released in 1915) just months after the unveiling.41

游行在 Vinegar Hill 结束绝非偶然，它当然也把夏洛茨维尔非裔美国人社区的注意力集中到了这里。这一周最终以一场盛大的 Confederate Ball 收尾，地点设在弗吉尼亚大学的 Memorial Gymnasium（图 10）。入场资格只限于南方邦联相关组织的成员，尤其是 Confederate Veterans 的女儿与儿子们。舞会公告还特别说明，Sons of Confederate Veterans 此时已经开始接受“孙辈”申请入会。[37] 三 K 党似乎与 Memorial Gym 有着特殊关系：就在十年前，该组织曾为修建这座设施向弗吉尼亚大学慷慨捐赠 1 万美元。所有这些活动，都是为了庆祝 Robert E. Lee。如果 George Washington 是国家之父，那么 Robert E. Lee 就是南方邦联的族长。弗吉尼亚大学校长 Edwin Alderman 在 Lee 纪念碑揭幕时正是这样说的：“南方伟大的领袖所做的，甚至超过了他伟大的原型 Washington。”Alderman 继续说，Lee “体现了整个州那段真诚而浪漫的历史中最美好的一切。 它的胜利、失败、欢乐、苦难、重生、自豪与忍耐，都集中在他的身上。”[38] 到 20 世纪最初几十年，对 Lee 的崇拜仪式已经深深嵌入白人南方人塑造自我身份的方式之中。Lee 雕像揭幕后仅几个月，当时正面对 Lee Square 的 First Presbyterian Church 的牧师就“描述了战前和战争期间南方的社会生活……以及其中所有理想而迷人的事物”（图 2 编号 14）。[39] 当里士满为自己的 Lee 雕像揭幕时，当地一位非裔美国居民概括了它传递的信息：“南方白人又站到上面了。”[40] 如果（默认属于白人的）“旧南方”的社会与文化被重新想象为优雅迷人，那么黑人文化就被重新塑造成它的反面。距离 Lee 纪念碑只有两个街区的 Jefferson Theater，在揭幕后仅几个月又重新放映了 1915 年首映的《一个国家的诞生》（Birth of a Nation）。[41]

The Daily Progress touted the film as “the greatest picture of the age.”42 The newspaper noted that the film’s rescreening “is drawing as large crowds as it did originally.” The Jefferson Theater offered multiple screenings a day as “thousands want to see it a second time.”43 The picture was notorious for its portrayal of African Americans as unintelligent and oversexed. The NAACP attempted to have the film banned. Just days later the Daily Progress ran a series of teaser ads announcing the arrival of a minstrel show for charity in the Jefferson Theater. Made up largely of white men in blackface, the minstrel show openly mocked African Americans. Using common visual language of the day, the ads exhibited highly caricatured and stereotyped images of black men (Figures 11, 12, 13).44 The Grand Camp of the Confederates, the screening of Birth of a Nation, and the openly racist minstrel shows were all part of the rebirth of the Old South in the imaginations of white Southerners.

《Daily Progress》把这部电影吹捧为“这个时代最伟大的影片”。[42] 报纸还指出，重映“吸引的人群和第一次上映时一样多”。Jefferson Theater 每天安排多场放映，因为“成千上万的人希望再看第二遍”。[43] 这部影片因把非裔美国人描绘成愚昧、性欲过度而臭名昭著，NAACP 曾试图推动禁映。仅仅几天后，《Daily Progress》又刊出一系列预热广告，宣布一场慈善滑稽歌舞演出（minstrel show）即将在 Jefferson Theater 上演。这场表演主要由涂黑脸的白人男性组成，公开嘲弄非裔美国人。广告使用了当时常见的视觉语言，以高度夸张、刻板化的方式呈现黑人男性形象（图 11、12、13）。Confederate Grand Camp、《一个国家的诞生》的放映，以及这些公然带有种族主义色彩的 minstrel shows，都构成了白人南方人想象中“旧南方”重生的一部分。

During the same months of these and other social spectacles, the KKK set off “heavy explosions from three bombs,” and then burned a cross in the yard of an African American church just outside of town. The event was attended by fifty Klansmen, “only about six of them masked.”45 The notable choice of many Klansmen to attend unmasked reveals their sense that the battle for public opinion had been won. (This same confidence resurfaced in 2017 when the KKK paraded unmasked but in full regalia and then unmasked neo-Nazis stormed the streets of downtown.) It was no accident that these early twentieth-century events all took place in the Jefferson Theater. The erection of the Lee monument was the culminating act in the remaking of a city as the new Old South, with all the attendant political, racial, educational, and cultural implications.

就在这些以及其他社会性盛会发生的同一时期，三 K 党还引爆了“三枚炸弹，造成巨大爆炸声”，随后又在城外一所非裔美国人教堂的院子里焚烧十字架。共有 50 名三 K 党成员参加，“其中只有大约 6 人戴着面具”。[45] 很多人选择不戴面具参加，恰恰显示出他们认为争夺公共舆论的战斗已经获胜。（同样的自信在 2017 年再次出现：三 K 党成员不戴面具、穿着全套制服游行，随后不戴面具的新纳粹分子又冲入市中心街道。）这些 20 世纪初的事件都发生在 Jefferson Theater，并非偶然。Lee 纪念碑的建立，是把这座城市重新塑造成“新的旧南方”的最终一环，而这项重塑同时伴随着政治、种族、教育和文化上的一系列后果。

The unveiling of the Robert E. Lee statue in 1924 was the completion of the first campaign for the remaking of the city and the beginning of the second. Paul McIntire’s gift of the monument to Lee was the second of two installations on Lee Park. Begun in 1919 to house the city’s public library, the McIntire Building, located on the northeast corner of the park, served as an appropriately romanticized backdrop for the Lee monument and triggered an aesthetic transformation of the city’s public architecture (Figure 2, number 15; Figure 14). Now housing the Albemarle Charlottesville Historical Society, the building was built of red brick with a crowning classical cornice and balustrade all fronted by a graceful curve of white columns. This is a stylistic tradition architectural historians identify as the colonial revival.46 The building was distinctive enough to warrant publication in a variety of architectural magazines and regular visits by students of architecture.47

1924 年 Robert E. Lee 雕像揭幕，标志着第一次城市重塑工程的完成，也开启了第二次工程。Paul McIntire 赠送 Lee 纪念碑，是 Lee Park 中两项设施的第二项。McIntire Building 于 1919 年开建，用作城市公共图书馆，位于公园东北角。它为 Lee 纪念碑提供了一个经过浪漫化的恰当背景，同时也触发了夏洛茨维尔公共建筑美学上的转型（图 2 编号 15；图 14）。这座建筑今天是 Albemarle Charlottesville Historical Society 所在地。它以红砖建造，上方有古典式檐口和栏杆，正立面前是一道优雅弯曲的白色柱列。建筑史学者把这种风格称为“殖民复兴式”（colonial revival）。[46] 这座建筑足够独特，以至于多种建筑杂志都曾刊载它，建筑专业学生也经常前来参观。[47]

With clear visual quotations from Monticello, the University, and local plantations like Bremo, these visual cues provided an ideal architectural setting for the rebirth of “old Virginia” as a historical past filled with all that was ideal and charming (Figures 15 and 16). In gratitude to Paul McIntire for his generous gift of the new, spectacular library to the city, the Board of Managers wrote in 1921 asking for permission to name the library in his honor and to convey their commitment to stewarding his “high purpose in providing this beautiful building with its rich contents for the use of the people.”48 But the library was not really for all of the people of Charlottesville. Although it is never explicitly stated in any of the early records, the McIntire Library was intended for Charlottesville’s white citizens. This fact was made explicit in June of 1934, when the publicly-funded library opened its first branch library, the “colored branch” in the Jefferson School (Figure 17).

通过清楚借用蒙蒂塞洛、弗吉尼亚大学以及 Bremo 等本地种植园的视觉元素，这些设计为“旧弗吉尼亚”的复兴提供了理想的建筑背景，把过去重新塑造成一个充满理想与魅力的历史时代（图 15、16）。为了感谢 Paul McIntire 向城市慷慨捐赠这座壮观的新图书馆，管理委员会在 1921 年写信请求允许以他的名字命名图书馆，并表达他们将妥善守护他“为人民使用而提供这座美丽建筑及其中丰富藏书的崇高目的”。[48] 然而，这座图书馆实际上并不是为夏洛茨维尔所有居民服务的。虽然早期记录从未明确写出这一点，但 McIntire Library 面向的是本市白人居民。直到 1934 年 6 月，由公共资金支持的图书馆开设第一处分馆——设在 Jefferson School 中的“有色人种分馆”——这一事实才被明确显现出来（图 17）。

Even though the library in the Jefferson School quickly grew to over 850 registered borrowers per month, it had no effect on the monthly tallies of borrowers using the McIntire Library, which remains unchanged through the end of 1934. Even though the McIntire Library was a white only space (excepting of course the black janitor Albert Southall) the Board of Managers waffled on whether they should even open a “Colored Branch,” describing the move to make books publicly available to Charlottesville’s black citizens as “inadvisable.”49 And when they did finally make the move to open the branch library, they opened it with almost exclusively works of fiction, noting that “little or no nonfiction was available.”50 As implicitly asserted by the Lewis and Clark monument, inquiry and discovery was reserved for the white intellect. And, finally, the $240 annual salary for the Jefferson School librarian was half that of the night librarian at the McIntire Library and less than one-quarter the salary of the head librarian.51

Jefferson School 图书馆很快发展到每月超过 850 名登记借阅者，但这丝毫没有影响 McIntire Library 每月借阅人数的统计；这一数字一直到 1934 年年底都基本没有变化。虽然 McIntire Library 实际上是一个只对白人开放的空间（当然，黑人清洁工 Albert Southall 除外），管理委员会甚至还曾犹豫是否应该开设一个“有色人种分馆”，并把让夏洛茨维尔黑人居民也能使用公共图书称为“不适宜”。[49] 当他们最终决定开设分馆时，馆藏几乎全是小说，并特别说明“几乎没有非虚构作品可供使用”。[50] 就像 Lewis and Clark 纪念碑在隐含层面所宣示的那样，探究与发现被保留给白人的智识活动。最后，Jefferson School 图书管理员每年 240 美元的薪酬，只有 McIntire Library 夜班图书管理员的一半，还不到馆长薪酬的四分之一。[51]

The McIntire Library launched an important aesthetic renaissance in Charlottesville's architecture, reviving the architectural tradition of the city's pre–Civil War landscape. But it was also an important building that—standing in the shadow of the Robert E. Lee Memorial—further institutionalized unequal access to public resources and the structural inequality of the city's public sphere. The colonial revival style of McIntire Library inaugurated the architecture of white supremacy. Since at least the 1980s, historians have understood the connection between the increasing popularity of the colonial revival style and the rise of immigration, especially in the cities of the northeast. The first curator of the American Wing of the Metropolitan Museum of Art in New York City, for example, wanted to offer "a visual personification of home life in this country," because he feared that "the influx of foreign ideas utterly at variance with those held by the men who gave us the Republic, threaten, and unless checked, may shake the foundations," of American life.52

McIntire Library 在夏洛茨维尔建筑中推动了一场重要的美学复兴，重新唤起了这座城市南北战争前景观中的建筑传统。但同时，它也是一座重要的制度性建筑——矗立在 Robert E. Lee 纪念碑的阴影中——进一步固化了公共资源获取上的不平等，以及城市公共领域中的结构性不平等。McIntire Library 的殖民复兴式风格开启了一套白人至上主义的建筑语言。至少从 1980 年代起，历史学家已经认识到，殖民复兴式日益流行与移民增加之间存在联系，尤其是在美国东北部城市。例如，纽约大都会艺术博物馆 American Wing 的首任策展人希望呈现“这个国家家庭生活的视觉人格化”，因为他担心，“与建立共和国的那些人所坚持的理念完全不相容的外国思想大量涌入，正在威胁——如果不加遏制，甚至可能动摇——美国生活的根基”。[52]

But the colonial revival was also a romantic program intended to affirm white supremacy, which in Charlottesville included supremacy over blacks as well as Jews, Catholics, and immigrants.53 With the completion of the McIntire Building the "rebirth" imagined by Alderman would begin to take shape in architecture across the city. While the first wave of colonial revival architecture in Charlottesville was domestic, by the 1930s the style extended to the city's institutional core. The post office, now the downtown public library, was opened in 1936 boasting a brick body and a monumental portico of white columns (Figure 2, number 16; Figure 18). Two years later, the courthouse was extensively remodeled to its current colonial revival appearance (Figure 19). In a 1930s postcard of downtown Charlottesville, the photographer uses the bright red brick and stark white trim of the new colonial revival Albemarle county office buildings and courthouse as a suitable backdrop for the Jackson monument (Figure 20).

然而，殖民复兴式同样是一套浪漫化的文化方案，目的在于确认白人至上主义；在夏洛茨维尔，这种“至上”不仅针对黑人，也包括犹太人、天主教徒和移民。[53] 随着 McIntire Building 完工，Alderman 所想象的“重生”开始在全城建筑中逐步成形。夏洛茨维尔第一波殖民复兴式建筑主要是住宅建筑；到 1930 年代，这一风格已经扩展到城市的制度性核心。邮局——今天的市中心公共图书馆——于 1936 年启用，以红砖墙体和由白色柱列构成的巨大门廊为特色（图 2 编号 16；图 18）。两年后，法院也经过大规模改造，成为今天所见的殖民复兴式外观（图 19）。在一张 1930 年代的夏洛茨维尔市中心明信片中，摄影者以新建的殖民复兴式阿尔伯马尔县办公楼和法院为背景，鲜亮的红砖与醒目的白色饰边共同衬托 Jackson 纪念碑（图 20）。

In this one image, the monument and the architecture work in concert to reinforce the city's institutional and structural commitment to a political hierarchy of race. And finally, in 1939, the superintendent of schools opened Lane High School, a colonial revival structure once again, looming high above the Vinegar Hill neighborhood (Figure 2, number 17; Figure 21). The colonial revival remaking of Charlottesville was emblematic of a public program of political disenfranchisement, the crowning achievement of a campaign that had been underway for decades. Lane High School

now serves as the Albemarle County Office Building. African Americans in early twentieth-century Charlottesville traversed a city that reminded them of their second-class status at every turn.54 Some had once lived in tenements on McKee's Row, but by the 1920s these had been demolished and replaced by a monument to Stonewall Jackson fronted by strong Aryan youth. Those who worked as janitors or other hourly-wage positions at the University passed by the George Rogers Clark statue and the new University hospital, both of which communicated a strong message of the inherent superiority and inevitable authority of whites.

在这一张图像中，纪念碑与建筑相互配合，共同强化了这座城市在制度与结构层面对种族政治等级秩序的承诺。最后，1939 年，教育主管启用了 Lane High School；这又是一座殖民复兴式建筑，高高俯视 Vinegar Hill 社区（图 2 编号 17；图 21）。殖民复兴式对夏洛茨维尔的重新塑造，是一项剥夺政治权利的公共工程的象征性体现，也是持续数十年的一场行动最终取得的顶点成果。Lane High School 如今作为 Albemarle County Office Building 使用。20 世纪初的非裔美国人在夏洛茨维尔穿行时，几乎在每一个转角都会被提醒自己的二等身份。[54] 有些人曾居住在 McKee's Row 的排屋中，但到 1920 年代，这些住房已经被拆除，原地换成了“石墙”杰克逊纪念碑，前方还有强壮的“雅利安”青年形象。那些在大学担任清洁工或其他按小时计薪工作的黑人，则会经过 George Rogers Clark 雕像和新建的大学医院；两者都传递着一种强烈信息，即白人的所谓天生优越性和不可避免的权威。

When they walked back to their home in Vinegar Hill they passed under the eager gaze of courageous discovery by Lewis and Clark and were reminded that such inquiry was in the realm of the white intellect. This was why there was a white high school but not a black one. And if they continued down Main Street and proceeded up Second Street they would enter the sacred precinct of Lee Square, the public library, the post office, and the court house that all reminded them that Charlottesville was a city blessed with a glorious past, but one with no room for black citizens. And these objects newly installed in the cityscape were directly correlated with a series of urban performances by whites that reinforced a clear racial hierarchy. Many of these performances appear to have had an intentional audience: the African Americans who lived in Vinegar Hill.

当他们步行返回 Vinegar Hill 的家时，又会从 Lewis 与 Clark 那种充满“勇敢发现”意味的凝视下经过，并被提醒：探究属于白人的智识领域。这也正是为什么城市里有白人高中，却没有黑人高中的原因。如果他们继续沿 Main Street 向前，再转入 Second Street，便会进入 Lee Square、公共图书馆、邮局和法院构成的近乎神圣的区域；这些地方都在提醒他们，夏洛茨维尔是一座以“光荣过去”为荣的城市，但这段光荣里没有黑人市民的位置。而这些刚刚被安置到城市景观中的物件，又与白人进行的一系列城市公共表演直接相互呼应，共同强化清晰的种族等级。其中很多表演似乎都有一个明确的目标受众：居住在 Vinegar Hill 的非裔美国人。

The parade celebrating the unveiling of the Jackson monument ended in a living Confederate banner in Midway Plaza, immediately above their neighborhood. The 1924 KKK parade celebrating the unveiling of the Lee statue began at the C&O Station and ended “at the foot of Vinegar Hill.” White school children spent Halloween running through that same neighborhood dressed in the white robes of the KKK. And, finally, the city school board built a colonial revival high school on a high hill looming over Vinegar Hill, a neighborhood that by 1939 was flanked by two monumental white high schools. This is not to say that Charlottesville's African American community did not resist these impositions. They organized a chapter of the NAACP. They registered to vote. They argued for equal access to education. But to no avail. By the late 1920s, Charlottesville's white establishment had cemented their victory through the erection of a series of monuments and buildings that became surrogates for the white hoods and torches of the lynch mob.

为 Jackson 纪念碑揭幕而举行的游行，最终在紧邻 Vinegar Hill 上方的 Midway Plaza，以一面“活的”南方邦联旗帜收尾。1924 年，为庆祝 Lee 雕像揭幕而举行的三 K 党游行从 C&O Station 出发，最终抵达“Vinegar Hill 山脚”。白人学生还在万圣节穿着三 K 党的白袍，奔跑穿过同一社区。最后，市教育委员会又在高地上建起一所殖民复兴式高中，俯视 Vinegar Hill；到 1939 年，这个社区已被两所巨大的白人高中夹在两侧。这并不是说夏洛茨维尔的非裔美国人社区没有抵抗这些强加给他们的安排。他们建立了 NAACP 分会，登记成为选民，也争取平等的教育机会。但这些行动都未能改变既有局面。到 1920 年代末，夏洛茨维尔的白人权力集团已经通过修建一系列纪念碑和建筑来巩固自己的胜利；这些物质景观成为私刑暴民白色兜帽与火把的替代物。

For African Americans, these were all part and parcel of the same cityscape, one of diminishment, degradation, and disenfranchisement. These four monuments are the material legacy of a comprehensive and very successful campaign of racial intimidation; while the white population in Charlottesville/Albemarle grew by an astonishing 45 percent between 1900 and 1930, the African American population shrank by 20 percent.55 Through the summer of 2017, Charlottesville once again witnessed the public display of white supremacy in its streets and squares. In response to the proposed removal of the monument to the patriarch of the Confederacy, two white nationalists—both UVA alumni—began planning a massive “invasion” of the city, with now infamous results. The conflict centered on the renamed Lee Park, dominated by the Lee statue. David Duke was interviewed with the unshrouded Lee rising behind him. Private militias marched down Market Street, passing right in front of the former post office.

对非裔美国人而言，这些事物都属于同一座城市景观：一座不断贬低他们、羞辱他们并剥夺其政治权利的城市。这四座纪念碑，是一场全面而且十分成功的种族恐吓行动留下的物质遗产；1900 至 1930 年间，夏洛茨维尔/阿尔伯马尔的白人人口惊人地增长了 45%，而非裔美国人人口却减少了 20%。[55] 到 2017 年夏天，夏洛茨维尔再次在街道与广场中见证白人至上主义的公开展示。为了回应拆除南方邦联最高象征人物 Lee 纪念碑的提议，两名白人民族主义者——而且都是弗吉尼亚大学校友——开始策划对这座城市的大规模“入侵”，其结果后来臭名昭著。冲突围绕已经改名的 Lee Park 展开，而公园的核心仍是 Lee 雕像。David Duke 接受采访时，身后耸立着没有遮挡的 Lee 雕像。私人武装组织则沿 Market Street 行进，正好从旧邮局门前经过。

An armed protester fired his gun in the square just yards from where a Presbyterian minister had once praised the charm of the Old South. The start of the 1924 KKK march was not far from the spots where DeAndre Harris was beaten and Heather Heyer was killed one century later. But as is very clear to all involved, these events were not really about the removal of a statue. In both events—in 1917 and in 2017—the intention was to enlist public space to explicitly assert white racial authority. In Charlottesville, the more obvious target was African Americans, but the KKK made clear their disdain for Jews and many others not like themselves. And while Charlottesville has now become synonymous with August 12, this is not a Southern story but a national condition. The deep legacies of exclusion and marginalization for some and preference and access for others are inscribed in the forms and names of buildings, bridges, sports teams, highways, parks, and statues across the Land of the Free. These historical legacies are not inert. Building on a long tradition, militias poured into the city last August equipped with shields and weapons because the removal of a monument signaled the potential destabilizing of the systems and structures that the statue had long represented: white supremacy.

一名持枪抗议者在广场上开枪，距离当年一位长老会牧师赞美“旧南方”魅力的地点只有几码。1924 年三 K 党游行的起点，也距离一个世纪后 DeAndre Harris 遭殴打、Heather Heyer 遇害的地点不远。但所有参与者其实都很清楚，这些事件真正争夺的并不仅仅是一座雕像是否应该被移除。无论 1917 年还是 2017 年，行动者的目的都是利用公共空间，明确宣示白人的种族权威。在夏洛茨维尔，最明显的目标当然是非裔美国人，但三 K 党也清楚表达了他们对犹太人以及许多其他“异己”群体的蔑视。虽然夏洛茨维尔如今已经与“8 月 12 日”几乎画上等号，但这并不只是一个南方故事，而是一个全国性的状况。对某些群体的排斥与边缘化，以及对另一些群体的优待和特权，这些深厚的历史遗产，被写进“自由之地”各处建筑、桥梁、运动队、公路、公园与雕像的形式和名称里。这些历史遗产并非静止不动。延续着一项长久的传统，去年 8 月各类武装组织带着盾牌和武器涌入夏洛茨维尔，正是因为移除一座纪念碑意味着：那套由这座雕像长期代表的制度和结构——白人至上主义——有可能因此发生动摇。

## Author Biography

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## Figure Captions

### 图注

Figure 1. Map of Charlottesville, circa 1920, showing the location of the four monuments and two of the majority African American neighborhoods, 10th and Page and Vinegar Hill. Map by Andrew Marshall.

图 1. 约 1920 年的夏洛茨维尔地图，标出四座纪念碑的位置，以及两个以非裔美国人为主的社区：10th and Page 与 Vinegar Hill。地图绘制：Andrew Marshall。

Figure 2. Detailed map of downtown Charlottesville, circa 1920, showing the location of various monuments and buildings discussed in the article and routes mapped out for marches and parades. 1: Stonewall Jackson Monument; 3: Lewis and Clark and Sacagawea Monument; 4: Robert E. Lee Monument; 5: Albemarle County Jail; 6: Albemarle County Courthouse; 7: McKee's Row; 8: Beth Israel Synagogue; 9: Holy Comforter Catholic Church; 11: Midway School; 12: Jefferson Graded School; 13: Jefferson Theater; 14: First Presbyterian Church; 15: McIntire Library; 16: Post Office, 1939 outline; 17: Lane High School; A: 1917 lynch mob; B: 1921 Confederate Veterans Parade; C: 1915 Halloween parade of KKK-clad children thorough Vinegar Hill; D: 1924 Grand Parade of the KKK. Map by Andrew Marshall.

图 2. 约 1920 年的夏洛茨维尔市中心详图，标出本文讨论的各座纪念碑、建筑，以及游行和队伍行进路线。1：“石墙”杰克逊纪念碑；3：Lewis、Clark 与 Sacagawea 纪念碑；4：Robert E. Lee 纪念碑；5：阿尔伯马尔县监狱；6：阿尔伯马尔县法院；7：McKee’s Row；8：Beth Israel 犹太会堂；9：Holy Comforter 天主教堂；11：Midway School；12：Jefferson Graded School；13：Jefferson Theater；14：First Presbyterian Church；15：McIntire Library；16：邮局（1939 年轮廓）；17：Lane High School；A：1917 年私刑暴民；B：1921 年南方邦联退伍军人游行；C：1915 年万圣节穿三 K 党服装的儿童穿过 Vinegar Hill 的游行；D：1924 年三 K 党大型游行。地图绘制：Andrew Marshall。

Figure 3. McKee's Row. Rufus W. Holsinger, Holsinger Studio Collection, Albert and Shirley Small Collection, University of Virginia.

图 3. McKee’s Row。Rufus W. Holsinger 摄，Holsinger Studio Collection，Albert and Shirley Small Collection，弗吉尼亚大学。

Figure 4. Charles Keck (sculptor), Thomas Jonathan "Stonewall" Jackson Monument, 1921, Charlottesville, Virginia. Photograph by Dell Upton, 2002.

图 4. Charles Keck（雕塑家），Thomas Jonathan “Stonewall” Jackson 纪念碑，1921 年，弗吉尼亚州夏洛茨维尔。Dell Upton 摄，2002 年。

Figure 5. Robert Ingersoll Aitken (sculptor), George Rogers Clark Monument, 1921, Charlottesville, Virginia. Photograph by author, January, 2018.

图 5. Robert Ingersoll Aitken（雕塑家），George Rogers Clark 纪念碑，1921 年，弗吉尼亚州夏洛茨维尔。作者摄，2018 年 1 月。

Figure 6. Detailed map of the Corner and the University hospital, circa 1920. 2: George Rogers Clark Monument; 10: University of Virginia Hospital. Map by Andrew Marshall.

图 6. 约 1920 年的 The Corner 与弗吉尼亚大学医院详图。2：George Rogers Clark 纪念碑；10：弗吉尼亚大学医院。地图绘制：Andrew Marshall。

Figure 7. Clubs and Organizations cover page, Corks and Curls, 1922. University of Virginia library.

图 7. 《Corks and Curls》1922 年“Clubs and Organizations”部分封面。弗吉尼亚大学图书馆。

Figure 8. Charles Keck (sculptor), Meriwether Lewis and William Clark [and Sacagawea] Monument, 1919, Charlottesville, Virginia. Photograph by the author, January 2018.

图 8. Charles Keck（雕塑家），Meriwether Lewis 与 William Clark［以及 Sacagawea］纪念碑，1919 年，弗吉尼亚州夏洛茨维尔。作者摄，2018 年 1 月。

Figure 9. Henry Shrady and Leo Lentelli (sculptors), Robert E. Lee Monument, 1924, Charlottesville, Virginia. Photograph by Bill Emory, Summer 2016.

图 9. Henry Shrady 与 Leo Lentelli（雕塑家），Robert E. Lee 纪念碑，1924 年，弗吉尼亚州夏洛茨维尔。Bill Emory 摄，2016 年夏。

Figure 10. “Gymnasium, University of Virginia, Charlottesville, Va.” Postcard, 1930–45. Tichnor Brothers Postcard Collection, Boston Public Library.

图 10. “Gymnasium, University of Virginia, Charlottesville, Va.” 明信片，1930—1945 年。Tichnor Brothers Postcard Collection，Boston Public Library。

Figure 11. Detail, Daily Progress, Charlottesville, Virginia, January 25, 1924, page 6.

图 11. 《Daily Progress》（弗吉尼亚州夏洛茨维尔）细节，1924 年 1 月 25 日，第 6 页。

Figure 12. Detail, Daily Progress, Charlottesville, Virginia, January 24, 1924, page 7.

图 12. 《Daily Progress》（弗吉尼亚州夏洛茨维尔）细节，1924 年 1 月 24 日，第 7 页。

Figure 13. Detail, Daily Progress, Charlottesville, Virginia, February 1, 1924, page 6.

图 13. 《Daily Progress》（弗吉尼亚州夏洛茨维尔）细节，1924 年 2 月 1 日，第 6 页。

Figure 14. McIntire Library (now the Albemarle Charlottesville Historical Society), Charlottesville, Virginia, 1921. Photograph by by author, May 2018.

图 14. McIntire Library（现为 Albemarle Charlottesville Historical Society），弗吉尼亚州夏洛茨维尔，1921 年。作者摄，2018 年 5 月。

Figure 15. “Monticello, Home of Thomas Jefferson, Charlottesville, Va.,” Postcard, 1930–45. Tichnor Brothers Postcard Collection, Boston Public Library.

图 15. “Monticello, Home of Thomas Jefferson, Charlottesville, Va.” 明信片，1930—1945 年。Tichnor Brothers Postcard Collection，Boston Public Library。

Figure 16. Bremo Plantation, Fluvanna County, Virginia. Photograph by author, 2015.

图 16. Bremo Plantation，弗吉尼亚州 Fluvanna County。作者摄，2015 年。

Figure 17. Charlottesville Public Library bookmark, 1940s, Charlottesville Public Library Collections, Charlottesville, Va. Note that the 4th Street Branch is marked (negro).

图 17. 夏洛茨维尔公共图书馆书签，1940 年代，Charlottesville Public Library Collections，弗吉尼亚州夏洛茨维尔。注意其中标注了 4th Street Branch（negro）。

Figure 18. “Post Office, Charlottesville, Virginia.” Postcard, 1930–45. Tichnor Brothers Postcard Collection, Boston Public Library.

图 18. “Post Office, Charlottesville, Virginia.” 明信片，1930—1945 年。Tichnor Brothers Postcard Collection，Boston Public Library。

Figure 19. “Court House and Statue of Confederate Soldier, Charlottesville, Va.” Postcard, 1930–45. Tichnor Brothers Postcard Collection, Boston Public Library.

图 19. “Court House and Statue of Confederate Soldier, Charlottesville, Va.” 明信片，1930—1945 年。Tichnor Brothers Postcard Collection，Boston Public Library。

Figure 20. “Stonewall Jackson Monument Showing Albemarle County Office Buildings and Court House.” Postcard, 1930–45. Tichnor Brothers Postcard Collection, Boston Public Library.

图 20. “Stonewall Jackson Monument Showing Albemarle County Office Buildings and Court House.” 明信片，1930—1945 年。Tichnor Brothers Postcard Collection，Boston Public Library。

Figure 21. “Lane High School, Charlottesville, Va.” Postcard, 1930–45. Tichnor Brothers Postcard Collection, Boston Public Library.

图 21. “Lane High School, Charlottesville, Va.” 明信片，1930—1945 年。Tichnor Brothers Postcard Collection，Boston Public Library。

## Notes

### 注释

The author is grateful to the following readers who offered feedback on early drafts of this article: Lisa Goff, Andrus Ashoo, Bill Wilder, Ian Stevenson, Marta Gutman, Claudrena Harold, and Dell Upton. Some portions of this article were previously published in the introductory essay in Louis P. Nelson and Claudrena Harold, eds. Charlottesville 2017: The Legacy of Race and Inequity (UVA Press, 2018).

作者感谢以下读者对本文早期稿件提出反馈：Lisa Goff、Andrus Ashoo、Bill Wilder、Ian Stevenson、Marta Gutman、Claudrena Harold 和 Dell Upton。本文部分内容此前已刊载于 Louis P. Nelson 与 Claudrena Harold 主编的《Charlottesville 2017: The Legacy of Race and Inequity》（UVA Press，2018）导论中。

1. This essay depends heavily on the excellent historical research published as “1917–1924: A Timeline; The McIntire Statues and Charlottesville’s African American Community,” an appendix to the report of the Mayor’s Blue Ribbon Commission on Race, Memorials, and Public Spaces. A deeper dive into the contexts outlined in this essay appears also in the rich online project The Illusion of Progress: Charlottesville’s Roots in White Supremacy, available on the website of UVA’s Carter G. Woodson Center: http://woodson.as.virginia.edu/woodson-projects.

1. 本文在很大程度上依赖一项优秀的历史研究：“1917–1924: A Timeline; The McIntire Statues and Charlottesville’s African American Community”，该研究作为附录收录于市长 Race, Memorials, and Public Spaces 蓝带委员会的报告中。若希望进一步了解本文所概述的历史语境，也可参见弗吉尼亚大学 Carter G. Woodson Center 网站上的在线项目《The Illusion of Progress: Charlottesville’s Roots in White Supremacy》：http://woodson.as.virginia.edu/woodson-projects。

2. Daily Progress, April 17, 1917.

2. 《Daily Progress》，1917 年 4 月 17 日。

3. Daily Progress, June 20, 1917.

3. 《Daily Progress》，1917 年 6 月 20 日。

4. Jeff Ueland and Barney Warf, “Racialized Topographies: Altitude and Race in Southern Cities,” Geographical Review 96, no. 1 (January 2006): 50–78. The analysis of urban lowlands is also the subject of current research by Steven Moga at Smith College.

4. Jeff Ueland 与 Barney Warf，“Racialized Topographies: Altitude and Race in Southern Cities,”《Geographical Review》96 卷 1 期（2006 年 1 月）：50–78。城市低地问题也是 Smith College 的 Steven Moga 当前研究的主题。

5. For more on the history of the patrons or artists see Aaron V. Wunsch, “From Private Privilege to Public Place: A Brief History of Parks and Park Planning in Charlottesville,” The Magazine of Albemarle County History 56 (1998): 80–90.

5. 关于这些资助者或艺术家的更多历史，参见 Aaron V. Wunsch，“From Private Privilege to Public Place: A Brief History of Parks and Park Planning in Charlottesville,”《The Magazine of Albemarle County History》56（1998）：80–90。

6. For a broader view of these kinds of monuments across the South, see Kirk Savage, ed., The Civil War in Art and Memory (New Haven, Conn.: Yale University Press, 2016).

6. 若要从更广泛的南方地区视角理解这类纪念碑，参见 Kirk Savage 主编，《The Civil War in Art and Memory》（New Haven, Conn.: Yale University Press, 2016）。

7. This section draws from research already published by Daniel Bluestone, “A Virginia Courthouse Square,” Buildings, Landscapes, and Memory: Case Studies in Historic Preservation (New York: Norton, 2011), 220–26 and Daily Progress, March 19, 1914.

7. 本节借鉴 Daniel Bluestone 已发表的研究：“A Virginia Courthouse Square,”收于《Buildings, Landscapes, and Memory: Case Studies in Historic Preservation》（New York: Norton, 2011），220–26；以及《Daily Progress》，1914 年 3 月 19 日。

8. Daily Progress, March 19, 1914.

8.《Daily Progress》，1914 年 3 月 19 日。

9. Daily Progress, October 19, 1921.

9.《Daily Progress》，1921 年 10 月 19 日。

10. For more on the particular authority of courthouses in early Virginia see Carl Lounsbury, The Courthouses of Early Virginia (Charlottesville: University of Virginia Press, 2005).

10. 关于早期弗吉尼亚法院所具有的特殊权威，参见 Carl Lounsbury，《The Courthouses of Early Virginia》（Charlottesville: University of Virginia Press, 2005）。

11. Kirk Savage, The Civil War in Art and Memory, 2.

11. Kirk Savage，《The Civil War in Art and Memory》，第 2 页。

12. Dell Upton, What Can and Can’t Be Said (New Haven, Conn.: Yale University Press, 2015), 33.

12. Dell Upton，《What Can and Can’t Be Said》（New Haven, Conn.: Yale University Press, 2015），第 33 页。

13. Linda Gordon, The Second Coming of the KKK: The Ku Klux Klan of the 1920s and the American Political Tradition (New York: Liveright, 2017).

13. Linda Gordon，《The Second Coming of the KKK: The Ku Klux Klan of the 1920s and the American Political Tradition》（New York: Liveright, 2017）。

14. Founded in 1909, the NAACP was at this point a fairly young organization. Blue Ribbon Commission Report, 16.

14. NAACP 成立于 1909 年，因此在当时仍是一个相当年轻的组织。参见《Blue Ribbon Commission Report》，第 16 页。

15. Daily Progress, October 1, 1920.

15.《Daily Progress》，1920 年 10 月 1 日。

16. Daily Progress, February 16, 1921.

16.《Daily Progress》，1921 年 2 月 16 日。

17. Daily Progress, February 19, 1921.

17.《Daily Progress》，1921 年 2 月 19 日。

18. Daily Progress, July 19, 1921.

18.《Daily Progress》，1921 年 7 月 19 日。

19. For more on the activity of the KKK in Charlottesville in the 1920s and 1930s, see “Chapter 1: Charlottesville’s Confederate Past,” from The Illusion of Progress, http://illusion.woodson.as.virginia.edu/index.html.

19. 关于三 K 党在 1920 和 1930 年代夏洛茨维尔的活动，参见《The Illusion of Progress》“Chapter 1: Charlottesville’s Confederate Past”：http://illusion.woodson.as.virginia.edu/index.html。

20. Daily Progress, November 3, 1921.

20.《Daily Progress》，1921 年 11 月 3 日。

21. Alumni News 10 (1921): 326.

21.《Alumni News》10（1921）：326。

22. Alumni News 10 (1921): 326.

22.《Alumni News》10（1921）：326。

23. Gregory Dorr, “Segregation’s Science: The American Eugenics Movement and Virginia, 1900–1980,” PhD diss., University of Virginia, 2000.

23. Gregory Dorr，“Segregation’s Science: The American Eugenics Movement and Virginia, 1900–1980,” 弗吉尼亚大学博士论文，2000 年。

24. Paul Barringer, The American Negro: His Past and Future (Raleigh, N.C.: Edwards and Broughton, 1900), 1.

24. Paul Barringer，《The American Negro: His Past and Future》（Raleigh, N.C.: Edwards and Broughton, 1900），第 1 页。

25. The Colored American, March 3, 1900.

25.《The Colored American》，1900 年 3 月 3 日。

26. Daily Progress, August 23, 1922.

26.《Daily Progress》，1922 年 8 月 23 日。

27. Daily Progress, April 6, 1924.

27.《Daily Progress》，1924 年 4 月 6 日。

28. For more on the Progressive Era in Charlottesville, see “Chapter 3: The Progressive Era and the Enforcement of Racial Difference,” from The Illusion of Progress, http://illusion.woodson.as.virginia.edu/index.html.

28. 关于夏洛茨维尔进步时代的更多内容，参见《The Illusion of Progress》“Chapter 3: The Progressive Era and the Enforcement of Racial Difference”：http://illusion.woodson.as.virginia.edu/index.html。

29. The most thorough discussion of racialized education in early Charlottesville is Scot French, “African American Civic Activism & the Making of Jefferson High School,” in Andrea Douglas, ed., Pride Overcomes Prejudice: A History of Charlottesville’s African American School (Charlottesville, Va.: Jefferson School African American Heritage Center, 2013), 41.

29. 关于早期夏洛茨维尔种族化教育最全面的讨论，参见 Scot French，“African American Civic Activism & the Making of Jefferson High School,” 收于 Andrea Douglas 主编，《Pride Overcomes Prejudice: A History of Charlottesville’s African American School》（Charlottesville, Va.: Jefferson School African American Heritage Center, 2013），第 41 页。

30. French, “African American Civic Activism,” 31, 44.

30. French，“African American Civic Activism,” 第 31、44 页。

31. French, “African American Civic Activism,” 59.

31. French，“African American Civic Activism,” 第 59 页。

32. French, “African American Civic Activism,” 48.

32. French，“African American Civic Activism,” 第 48 页。

33. Daily Progress, November 1, 1916.

33.《Daily Progress》，1916 年 11 月 1 日。

34. French, “African American Civic Activism,” 52.

34. French, “African American Civic Activism,” 第 52 页。

35. French, “African American Civic Activism,” 60.

35. French, “African American Civic Activism,” 第 60 页。

36. Daily Progress, May 19, 1924.

36.《Daily Progress》，1924 年 5 月 19 日。

37. Daily Progress, May 15, 1924.

37.《Daily Progress》，1924 年 5 月 15 日。

38. Daily Progress, May 21, 1924.

38.《Daily Progress》，1924 年 5 月 21 日。

39. A few decades later the church moved to a new site on Park Street. The original site is now a parking lot. Daily Progress, January 21, 1924.

39. 几十年后，这座教堂迁往 Park Street 的新址。原址如今是一处停车场。另见《Daily Progress》，1924 年 1 月 21 日。

40. Cited in Kirk Savage, Standing Soldiers, Kneeling Slaves: Race, War, and Monument in Nineteenth-Century America (Princeton, N.J.: Princeton University Press, 1997), 151.

40. 引自 Kirk Savage，《Standing Soldiers, Kneeling Slaves: Race, War, and Monument in Nineteenth-Century America》（Princeton, N.J.: Princeton University Press, 1997），第 151 页。

41. Nancy Bishop Dessommes, “Hollywood in Hoods: The Portrayal of the Ku Klux Klan in Popular Film,” Journal of Popular Culture 32, no. 4 (March 1999): 13–22.

41. Nancy Bishop Dessommes，“Hollywood in Hoods: The Portrayal of the Ku Klux Klan in Popular Film,”《Journal of Popular Culture》32 卷 4 期（1999 年 3 月）：13–22。

42. Daily Progress, January 25, 1924.

42.《Daily Progress》，1924 年 1 月 25 日。

43. Daily Progress, January 25, 1924.

43.《Daily Progress》，1924 年 1 月 25 日。

44. Daily Progress, February 1, 1924.

44.《Daily Progress》，1924 年 2 月 1 日。

45. Daily Progress, June 21, 1924.

45.《Daily Progress》，1924 年 6 月 21 日。

46. On the colonial revival, see Richard Wilson, “What Is the Colonial Revival?” in Richard Guy Wilson, Shaun Eyring, and Kenny Marotta, eds. Re-creating the American Past: Essays on the Colonial Revival (Charlottesville: University of Virginia Press, 2006). For a deeply contextual reading of the colonial revival, see Lydia Mattice Brandt, First in the Homes of His Countrymen: George Washington’s Mount Vernon in the American Imagination (Charlottesville: University of Virginia Press, 2016).

46. 关于殖民复兴式，参见 Richard Wilson，“What Is the Colonial Revival?” 收于 Richard Guy Wilson、Shaun Eyring 与 Kenny Marotta 主编，《Re-creating the American Past: Essays on the Colonial Revival》（Charlottesville: University of Virginia Press, 2006）。若要了解殖民复兴式更深入的语境化研究，参见

Lydia Mattice Brandt, 《First in the Homes of His Countrymen: George Washington’s Mount Vernon in the American Imagination》（Charlottesville: University of Virginia Press, 2016）。

47. “Minutes of the Board of Managers, Charlottesville Public Library,” July 9, 1923, Jefferson-Madison Regional Library, Charlottesville Virginia.

47. “Minutes of the Board of Managers, Charlottesville Public Library,” 1923 年 7 月 9 日，Jefferson-Madison Regional Library，弗吉尼亚州夏洛茨维尔。

48. “Minutes of the Board of Managers, Charlottesville Public Library,” May 23, 1921, Jefferson-Madison Regional Library, Charlottesville Virginia.

48. “Minutes of the Board of Managers, Charlottesville Public Library,” 1921 年 5 月 23 日，Jefferson-Madison Regional Library，弗吉尼亚州夏洛茨维尔。

49. “Minutes of the Board of Managers, Charlottesville Public Library,” April 13, 1934, Jefferson-Madison Regional Library, Charlottesville Virginia.

49. “Minutes of the Board of Managers, Charlottesville Public Library,” 1934 年 4 月 13 日，Jefferson-Madison Regional Library，弗吉尼亚州夏洛茨维尔。

50. “Minutes of the Board of Managers, Charlottesville Public Library,” January 12, 1934, Jefferson-Madison Regional Library, Charlottesville Virginia.

50. “Minutes of the Board of Managers, Charlottesville Public Library,” 1934 年 1 月 12 日，Jefferson-Madison Regional Library，弗吉尼亚州夏洛茨维尔。

51. “Minutes of the Board of Managers, Charlottesville Public Library,” September 14, 1934, Jefferson-Madison Regional Library, Charlottesville Virginia.

51. “Minutes of the Board of Managers, Charlottesville Public Library,” 1934 年 9 月 14 日，Jefferson-Madison Regional Library，弗吉尼亚州夏洛茨维尔。

52. Quoted in William B. Rhoads, “The Colonial Revival and the Americanization of Immigrants” from Alan Axelrod, ed., The Colonial Revival in America (New York: Norton, 1985), 348–49.

52. 引自 William B. Rhoads, “The Colonial Revival and the Americanization of Immigrants,” 收于 Alan Axelrod 主编, 《The Colonial Revival in America》（New York: Norton, 1985）, 348–49。

53. For an argument about the racialized nature of the colonial revival see Catherine W. Bishir, “Landmarks of Power: Building a Southern Past, 1885–1915,” in Southern Built: American Architecture, Regional Practice (Charlottesville: University of Virginia Press, 2013).

53. 关于殖民复兴式所具有的种族化性质，参见 Catherine W. Bishir, “Landmarks of Power: Building a Southern Past, 1885–1915,” 收于《Southern Built: American Architecture, Regional Practice》（Charlottesville: University of Virginia Press, 2013）。

54. On the realities of racism and walking in more recent times, see Garnette Cadogan, “Walking While Black: Garnette Cadogan on the Realities of Being Black in America,” Literary Hub, July 8, 2016 [republished in Jesmyn Ward, ed., The Fire This Time: A New Generation Speaks about Race (New York: Scribner, 2016).

54. 关于较近时期种族主义与步行经验的现实，可参见 Garnette Cadogan, “Walking While Black: Garnette Cadogan on the Realities of Being Black in America,”《Literary Hub》, 2016 年 7 月 8 日［后重刊于 Jesmyn Ward 主编, 《The Fire This Time: A New Generation Speaks about Race》（New York: Scribner, 2016）］。

55. US Census Bureau Archives online: www.census.gov/prod/www/decennial.html.

55. 美国人口普查局在线档案：www.census.gov/prod/www/decennial.html。